

The nonprofit marketing landscape: guest editors' introduction to a special section

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Abstract

Welcome to this special section of the *Journal of Business Research* devoted to nonprofit, arts and social marketing. The five articles appearing in this section have been selected and developed from papers originally presented at the first two annual colloquiums on nonprofit, social and arts marketing organised in the United Kingdom by Henley Management College and London Metropolitan University. This annual event is fast becoming a leading European outlet for cutting edge research in these important fields. The topics embraced by nonprofit, social and arts marketing are as diverse as they are complex. This introduction to the special section aims to illustrate the extent of the diversity, to identify critical problems, and to suggest possible areas for future research.

It is impossible to mention in this introduction all the subjects covered by nonprofit, arts and social marketing, or even to cite all the major contributions to any one of its many spheres. Thus, we concentrate on relatively recent literature that, in itself, contains extensive references to prior and collateral research and which usefully reviews the work of others in the subject area concerned. A handful of topics have been especially salient in the literature concerning the marketing activities of nonprofit organisations during the last two decades. Essentially, these focus on the development and consequences of marketing orientation among organisation members, the theory and practice of fundraising, the stimulation of changes in social behaviour, and corporate involvement in nonprofit affairs. The employment of marketing techniques and principles to attract volunteers to work in nonprofit, social and arts organisations has also received much attention.

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1. Income generation

Authors, such as Lovelock and Weinberg (1990) and Sargeant (1999a), state that a unique characteristic of the nonprofit sector is the often-stark division between (i) the markets for resource attraction and (ii) resource allocation. People who benefit from nonprofit products and services often enjoy those products/services free of charge or at a highly subsidised rate. The shortfall is typically made up from funds secured from individual or institutional donors who support the work of the organisation. The issue of fundraising thus receives considerable attention in the literature and is probably one of the most researched facets of nonprofit marketing and management. In structuring this brief review, we consider extant work relating to fundraising from both

individual and corporate sources. Whilst nonprofits also receive significant sums from government and grant-making trusts/foundations, often well in excess of those donated by corporates, these latter two categories of funder have received little attention in the marketing literature to date.

1.1. Fundraising from individuals

Natarajan and Bagozzi (1999) noted that marketing continues to grow and evolve as an applied and theoretical discipline because of the breadth of situations and diversity of psychological theoretical bases on which it draws. In the fundraising realm, this has proven to be the case, with important work drawn from the disciplines of economics, clinical psychology, social psychology, anthropology, and sociology. It has only been comparatively recent that marketing's contribution to the subject has been recognised, and a succession of authors has demonstrated its utility (e.g., Kotler and Andreasen, 1987; Varadarajan and Menon, 1988;

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Guy and Patton, 1989). Indeed, a number of studies have attempted to synthesise the diverse literature in various fields and to develop composite models of giving or helping behaviour (Burnett and Wood, 1988; Guy and Patton, 1989; Bendapudi et al., 1996; Sargeant, 1999a,b). Other authors have examined specific aspects of fundraising and have addressed issues such as distinguishing givers from non-givers (Galaradi, 1989; Jones and Posnett, 1991; Penrod, 1983; Harvey, 1990; Schlegelmilch and Tynan, 1989; Bhattacharya et al., 1995; Fisher and Ackerman, 1998), delineating the characteristics of higher value givers (Reykowski, 1982; Amato, 1985; Bruce, 1998; Braus, 1994), or positing the motives for support of nonprofits (Morgan et al., 1979; Clary and Synder, 1991; Pitts and Skelly, 1984; Eisenberg and Miller, 1987). More recent work has also addressed the returns from various communication techniques (Rooney, 2001), donor lifetime value (Sargeant, 2001), the use of direct marketing techniques in fundraising (Schmittlein and Peterson, 1996), and the development of attitudinal measurement scales to aid in the prediction of giving behaviours (Webb et al., 2000). Despite the concentration of research effort in the domain of individual giving, there remain many opportunities for further studies. The search for a comprehensive model of donor behaviour remains elusive and, although a number of researchers have now developed hypothesised models, there remains considerable scope for the empirical testing thereof. Additional work is also necessary to understand the extent to which it may be possible to segment the donor market. Whilst numerous studies, including those alluded to above, have distinguished between donors and nondonors, and high- and low-value givers, there remains little evidence regarding the degree to which the profile of donors to one nonprofit might match those to another. There is also the need to understand the variables that might influence giving, beyond those associated with a specific campaign. The impact of factors, such as branding, societal trust, commitment, and organisational identification, for example, remains grievously underresearched. An intriguing question yet to be addressed in a rigorous manner is why certain fundraising techniques that have been proven highly successful in one country fail when attempted in other countries. An example that immediately springs to mind is the extremely slow take-up in European nations of “planned giving” donor products. Such products confer financial advantages via tax breaks on donors as well as recipient organisations and, for more than two decades, have raised enormous amounts for charities in the United States. (More than half the total value of all U.S. charitable donations are now attributable to planned giving.) A thorough consideration of the national and cultural factors that inhibit the cross-border transfer of nonprofit fundraising products and technologies is urgently required. Finally, the issue of organisation membership and the factors that drive the acquisition and retention of members demands further attention, with only Bhattacharya et al. (1995) offering a significant contribution to this area.

1.2. Corporate support

The degree to which corporate support of good causes is driven predominantly by purely philanthropic rather than commercial motives has been keenly debated in the academic literature in the fundraising field. Companies can make gifts to a nonprofit organisation without *any* expectation of commercial reward, might engage in “cause-related marketing (CRM)”, or may “sponsor” charities or other good causes. Collaborative arrangements between businesses and nonprofits are increasingly sophisticated and extend nowadays to licensing agreements, joint issue promotions, strategic alliances, and joint ventures (see Wymer and Samu, 2003 for a typology of possible forms of relationship). CRM has been defined as the situation that arises when a business promotes or assists a nonprofit cause by publicising that a proportion of its profits or sales will be devoted to that cause (Varadarajan and Menon, 1988). Often, the level of donation is directly linked to the turnover attributable to the company’s association with the good cause, the details of which might be prominently displayed on product packs or on shelves in supermarkets. Indeed, the bulk of the surface area of a product’s packaging may be given over to the logo and promotional message of a charity or other nonprofit organisation. CRM seeks *overtly* to link the buying public’s positive attitudes towards nonprofit organisations with the image of the sponsoring company or brand (Bhattacharya et al., 1995). The emphasis is as much on what a charity can do for the business as on the benefits to the charity of company giving, although options differ as to whether corporate involvement in CRM is driven fundamentally by the profit motive rather than by altruism (see Varadarajan and Menon, 1988; Sargeant and Stephenson, 1997; File and Prince, 1998; Bronn and Vrioni, 2001).

To the extent that CRM is motivated by the pursuit of commercial advantage, the practice needs to be regarded as a hard-headed business investment, subject to normal commercial rules (see Bennett, 1997 for the details of relevant literature supporting this proposition). The converse view is that genuine philanthropy lies at the heart of most corporate involvement with charities so that the application of commercial principles to the management of CRM might not be appropriate. Advocates of the proposition that CRM should be seen as a commercial rather than philanthropic activity argue that corporate support for a good cause is essentially a product that can (indeed should) be marketed to the public at large. Therefore, it should be professionally managed and treated as an investment with returns, which are ultimately beneficial to the sponsoring firm. Further vindications of the adoption of a commercial approach are the propositions that (i) by increasing business revenues, a firm generates the profits necessary to fund additional donations to good causes, and (ii) the company’s own customers and employees may themselves be encouraged to give to a particular good cause consequent to the publicity surrounding a firm’s

involvement (Collins, 1994). This debate has generated a plethora of research questions. Among the most pressing, according to Wymer and Samu (2003), are the criteria to be employed when (i) dividing the profits arising from a highly successful campaign (including the issue of whether the nonprofit partner should benefit from the appreciation of a company's share price), and (ii) deciding whether a potential partner is a "good fit" with the organisation concerned. Issues concerning the power of each partner and how this impacts on marketing decisions are worthy of detailed investigation, as are the roles of trust and commitment in the nonprofit–business relationship context.

A substantial amount of evidence suggests that consumers generally support CRM (see Polonsky and MacDonald, 2000) and are willing to switch brands to a cause-related alternative, provided the price is not excessively high. Benefits of CRM allegedly accruing to companies include economies available from pooling two organisations' marketing resources, the brand equity arising from a firm's overt association with a good cause, the facilitation of integrated marketing communications, higher sales and market share, enhanced image and reputation, improved employee morale, and the differentiation of the company from its rivals. Research into consumer attitudes towards CRM has been extensive (see Barone et al., 2000), although studies of corporate perspectives on the practice have been sparse (see Bennett, 2002 for details).

"Sponsorship" is a common means whereby businesses support charitable organisations. Meenaghan (1991, p. 36) defined sponsorship as the purchase (in cash or kind) of an association with an event, team, activity, etc., in return for the "exploitable commercial potential linked to that activity". Companies sponsor nonprofits and activities for a variety of reasons. Allegedly, the sponsorship of a nonprofit organisation can improve consumers' perceptions of the sponsoring business by "linking their beliefs about it to an event or (charitable) organisation that the target audience already values highly", thus 'side-stepping the roadblocks and counterarguments that direct persuasion sometimes faces' (Crimmins and Horn, 1996, p. 12). In addition, sponsorship of this type can influence numerous diverse constituencies including (as well as existing and potential customers) shareholders, employees, financiers, the media, pressure groups, and local and national government.

Arguably, therefore, the sponsorship of a nonprofit organisation is a form of CRM, as the sponsoring firm receives specific benefits tied to the sponsorship deal (Meenaghan, 1991). Nevertheless, the fundamental motives underlying a nonprofit sponsorship need not be in any way commercial. Rather, corporate decision takers might not expect a return from a sponsorship of this type, which may have resulted simply from feelings of sympathy and compassion towards the victims of distressing conditions, in conjunction with a belief that the use of a company's resources for sponsorship purposes will help create a better world (Brown and Smyth, 1998).

Research into matters relating to sponsorship, altruism, and CRM has tended to concentrate on the management of processes (e.g., Polonsky and Speed, 2001) and on the relationships between nonprofit sponsorship and the creation of a socially responsible corporate image (Collins, 1994; Simon, 1995; Bennett, 1997; Werbal and Wortman, 2000). Much of the literature has concerned sports sponsorship (see Miyazaki and Morgan, 2001 for information on relevant articles), sponsorship of the arts (see O'Hagan and Harvey, 2000; Quester and Thompson, 2001), and the sponsorship of children's, animal, and medical charities. Note, however, that as the degree of state involvement in the provision of general social welfare diminishes within Western countries, the level of academic interest in novel forms of sponsorship in hitherto unusual areas is bound to increase. Corporate sponsorship of schools and colleges, hospitals and other healthcare facilities, local government activities (graffiti removal for instance), policing, and various aspects of civil administration are obvious candidates for consideration. The attitudes towards the receipt of sponsorship among the existing managers of organisations currently supplying these services are also worthy of examination.

2. Market orientation

Success in fundraising links closely to a nonprofit's level of market orientation. Indeed, lately, there has been considerable interest in the operationalisation of the marketing concept and the relationship between the market orientation construct and various measures of nonprofit performance. Seminal work in the for-profit sector by Kohli and Jaworski (1990) and Narver and Slater (1990) presented two competing, although not mutually exclusive, views of the construct. Of these, the work by the latter authors has tended to attract the most attention in the nonprofit context, although a number of revisions have typically been made to the behavioural dimensions originally proposed, namely, profit orientation, customer orientation, competitor orientation, and interfunctional coordination. Siu and Wilson (1998), for example, argued that to apply market orientation to the setting of Further Education Colleges, it was necessary to drop the concepts of profit and competition and replace them with what the authors refer to as "employee orientation" and a long-term survival requirement. Indeed, of all the nonprofit sectors, the market orientation of higher education institutions appears to have attracted the most attention, with various authors positing links between market orientation and the degree to which an institution can attract and retain students (cf. Kotler, 1976; Blackburn, 1980; Kotler and Fox, 1985). Caruana et al. (1998) also focused on the public and university sectors. In both cases, they identified a positive association between the level of market orientation attained and a variety of performance measures. Adopting a similar methodology, Bennett (1998)

identified a link between market orientation and fundraising performance in small/medium sized UK charities.

In a study of market orientation in healthcare, [Hayden \(1993\)](#) distinguishes between customers and consumers, and examined the organisation's orientation toward both. [George and Compton \(1985\)](#), also writing in the healthcare arena, emphasised the role of personnel in this context and embraced this dimension in their definition of the construct. More recent work by [Sargeant et al. \(2002\)](#) has called into question the legitimacy of this work, noting that applying the work of [Narver and Slater \(1990\)](#) to nonprofit organisations may be problematic because their operationalisation of the marketing concept was drawn from a for-profit definition and conceptual work conducted in the context of large multinational corporations. [Sargeant et al. \(2002\)](#) argued that it may be more appropriate to begin by operationalising a nonprofit definition of marketing, and offered a revised perspective on the construct.

3. Image and reputation

The trend towards marketing orientation among charitable organisations has been accompanied by a concern for the effective management of their external images. In particular, the example set by a number of high-profile UK fundraising charities, which renamed and repositioned themselves in the early 1990s, greatly encouraged other nonprofit organisations to manage their images in a systematic manner. These high-profile charities achieved increases in income of upwards of 10% per annum following their adoption of new images. Specific examples included the relaunch of the "Spastics Society" as SCOPE; the renaming of the National Marriage Guidance Society as RELATE; the decision of the Royal National Institute of the Blind to abandon its long-established "man with a white stick" logo; and the mental health charity MENCAP's abdication of its traditional "Little Tommy" representation (showing a child with an obvious learning difficulty) in favour of more positive depictions. Nowadays, donors expect a professional approach to image management among fund-raising organisations ([Saxton, 1995](#); [Tapp, 1996](#)).

An excellent charity image (i) is a significant determinant of donation income (see, e.g., [Tapp, 1996](#); [Kennedy, 1998](#)), (ii) influences consumer preferences for charity branded products ([Tapp, 1996](#); [Ramrayka, 1998](#)), and (iii) generates "halo effects" vis-à-vis a wide range of organisational activities. [Van Riel \(1995\)](#) noted the usefulness of a carefully constructed image in "low involvement" situations (which could include a casual decision to respond to a charity's request for a donation), wherein individuals are not motivated to process information extensively. Here, people are susceptible to influence by peripheral cues such as a positive image. The latter, moreover, might provide a person with a seemingly rational basis for giving to one charity rather than to another, and could impart authority and "emotional

value" to transactions with the charity concerned (cf. [Van Riel, 1995, p. 76](#)).

Recent academic research in the field of charity image building has concentrated on the links between charity image and charity reputation ([Bennett and Gabriel, 2000](#)), and how charity reputations are formed. "Reputation" is a concept related to (but differing from) image and connotes a value judgement about an organisation's qualities "built up over a period and focusing on what it does and how it behaves" ([Balmer, 1998, p. 971](#)). Thus, reputation has an historical dimension as it comprises a "subjective, collective assessment of an organisation's trustworthiness and reliability" based on past performance ([Fombrun and Van Riel, 1997, p. 10](#)). Because reputations evolve over time, they cannot be fashioned as quickly as images. Moreover, a charity might have a good reputation (e.g., for providing excellent medical care for beneficiaries) yet possess a low-impact, old-fashioned or, otherwise, inappropriate image. The reverse could also be true: a strong image crafted via a powerful organisational identity programme, advertising, public relations, and integrated marketing communications might not be matched by a cogent reputation. Charities need both a salient image and a sound reputation. The latter enables a charity to withstand occasional adverse publicity, stimulates trust, encourages donor loyalty, and enhances the organisation's competitive (fundraising) position. Research opportunities in this field include the application of pre-existing instruments for measuring the images, identities, and reputations of nonprofit organisations and, of course, the development of new instruments specially constructed for the nonprofit sector. An in-depth analysis of the perceptions of the image and reputation of a charitable organisation held by various stakeholders and donor segments would also be valuable. For instance, do individuals, known to give heavily to particular types of charity, interpret the recipients' images and reputations differently to others and, if so, why is this the case?

4. Recruitment of volunteers

By the late 1990s, the annual contribution of charity volunteers to the UK economy was equivalent to that of a workforce of between two and three million full-time workers ([Ziewmeck, 1998](#)), and the demand for volunteers was expanding ([Whithear, 1999](#)). For many charities, the recruitment of volunteers is a major task and one to which marketing clearly has the potential to make an important contribution ([Yavas and Riecken, 1997](#)). Research in this area has focused on the segmentation of the "market" for volunteers in terms of personal values and characteristics ([Wymer, 1997](#)), the types of advertising message that are most effective for communicating with potential volunteers ([Bennett and Kottasz, 2000](#)), and the factors that encourage volunteers to remain in post ([Omoto and Snyder, 1995](#)). A question frequently discussed within this literature is wheth-

er people volunteer mainly for altruistic reasons, or from mundane and quintessentially selfish motives. The latter could incorporate opportunities to socialise and make new friends; to obtain valuable job skills, training, and experience; or, to feel a surge of self-gratifying positive emotion and enhanced self-worth as a consequence of having volunteered.

An important factor contributing to the increasing demand for volunteers has been the rise of the “charity shop” as a significant player in the retailing sector (Whithear, 1999). Britain’s top 20 income-generating charities own at least 4000 shops staffed by over 100,000 volunteers. Ensuring a steady supply of volunteers to work in these shops is problematic (Horne and Broadbridge, 1994), and the promotional strategies most likely to succeed in this respect are clearly worthy of detailed investigation.

5. Marketing the arts

According to Butler (2000, p. 344), the “arts” mainly comprise theatrical, musical, and dance performances plus nonperforming arts with a creative dimension. Research in arts marketing has extended to audience development (e.g., Scheff and Kotler, 1996; Boudier-Pailier, 1999), image and identity of cultural organisations (Bennett and Kottasz, 2001), branding (Caldwell, 2000), the management of the marketing function (Cooke, 1997), networking (Scott, 1997), pricing (Scheff, 1999; Butler, 2000), and the application of the marketing concept within this area (e.g., Meyer and Even, 1998; Botti, 2000; Gainer and Padanyi, 2002). Relationships between arts marketing, artistic creativity, and entrepreneurship are also beginning to attract serious attention from researchers in the field (see, e.g., Rentschler, 2001; Chong, 2002; Fillis, 2002). It is relevant to note the many overlaps of arts marketing with the marketing of public sector organisations and the marketing of services. However, arts marketing is (allegedly) unique in that the ways in which an arts organisation is marketed are frequently connected with its owners’ and managers’ views about the organisation’s cultural and educational role (Boudier-Pailier, 1999; Peterson and Malhotra, 1999). Does an arts or cultural organisation exist to educate, challenge, and stretch the imaginations of its publics (see Voss and Voss, 2000), or are its core purposes simply to maximise revenues and entertain audiences? In many Western countries, local arts are regarded as a significant national asset. Performing arts in particular have a nonprofit heritage and artistic rather than financial considerations may be the primary motivation behind their work.

Directions for future research in arts marketing could involve the methods whereby the managers of arts organisations acquire and utilise knowledge of modern marketing methods, fresh techniques for gaining a competitive edge, the marketing consequences of specific venue locations, and new product development processes vis-à-vis artistic pro-

ductions. The role of atmospherics in attracting and retaining visitors to arts and cultural organisations has yet to be investigated extensively. How exactly does the atmosphere of a venue influence the attitude and behaviour of various socioeconomic audiences? An interesting aspect of arts marketing is that it sometimes involves the promotion and sale of “difficult” products, that is, products that an organisation’s management regards as excellent but which many members of the general public simply do not want to buy. The lesser known works of William Shakespeare, certain contemporary dance productions, and innovative performances in avant-garde fringe theatres may be said to fall in the difficult product category so far as arts marketing is concerned. What are the special factors associated with the successful promotion of such products?

6. Social marketing

Although the origins of social marketing can be traced back to the discipline of sociology (Wiebe, 1952), it rose to prominence as a distinct application of marketing in the early 1970s when Kotler and Zaltman (1971) recognised that marketing tools and techniques typically applied to products/services could be applied equally well to the marketing of ideas. Since then, considerable effort has been expended, defining the social marketing domain and distinguishing it as an approach from “mainstream” marketing and other forms of social communication (Kotler and Andreasen, 1987; Andreasen, 2001). The consensus now emerging from this literature is that social marketing is characterised by consumer orientation, the use of marketing’s full conceptual framework to design behaviour change interventions, recognition of competition, reliance on formative research, segmentation of populations/target audiences, and continuous monitoring and reviewing of program tactics (Andreasen, 1995; Coreil and Mull, 2001).

Andreasen (1995) notes that social marketing has tended to be employed where individual members of the public engage in unsafe, resistant behaviours and where, as a consequence, behaviour change would improve their personal welfare and that of wider society. Accordingly, the early literature focused predominantly on the products associated with such behaviour change and, thus, on the marketing of pharmaceuticals, condoms, oral rehydration tablets, etc. (Andreasen, 2002). More recently, the subject has extended to wider areas of application, subdivided into case studies of successful practice, tool applications, and conceptual debates. The majority of this work has elected to focus on specific issues such as HIV infection and sexual responsibility (e.g., Black, 1979; Luthra, 1991; Ramah and Cassidy, 1992; Cohen et al., 1999; Reichert et al., 2001; Moore et al., 2002), smoking (e.g., Elder, 1994; McKenna et al., 2000; Zucker et al., 2000), drink driving (e.g., Braus, 1995), pollution/business ethics (e.g., Abratt and Sacks, 1988), recycling/energy conservation (McKenzie-Mohr,

1994), radon testing (DiPofi et al., 2001), skin cancer prevention (Peattie et al., 2001), and drug, solvent or alcohol abuse (e.g., Smith, 1992; Stanton et al., 2000).

Other more generic work concentrates on the development of frameworks and approaches drawn from successful professional practice (Goldberg, 1997; Rothschild, 1999), alternative consumer behaviour models (Hornik, 2001), market segmentation (Donovan, 1999), and the nature of successful communication messages (Maibach and Cotton, 1995; Pechmann and Reibling, 2000). Indeed, in respect of the latter, authors such as Siegel et al. (1986), Adelman (1992), and Atkin and Marshall (1996) note with some disdain the predominance of fear appeals and the paucity of other themes. Only recently have new themes begun to be addressed in the literature, including, most recently, the use of sexual appeals (see Reichert et al., 2001). In a useful state of the art review, Andreasen (2002) concluded that academic research in relation to social marketing remains underdeveloped. The author cited the following causes of this: (i) problems of conflicting definitions and (ii) inadequate publicity of successful practice and a general lack of academic stature, despite the emergence of journals such as *Social Marketing Quarterly* and special issues in journals such as the *Journal of Public Policy and Marketing* (Pechmann, 2002). This is regretful since social marketing tools and techniques can be applied to a wide range of human situations and contexts. Indeed, where social marketing initiatives have failed, the causes have frequently been traced to marketing problems, rather than the ability of a service/organisation to deal with the social issue per se. Greater research would hence assist in the development of successful professional practice. Further work in relation to the delineation of critical success factors, the integration of other mix variables to increase response and strategic/tactical issues such as segmentation/positioning, the utility offered by new media channels, and the development of non-fear-based campaign messages would seem particularly warranted.

7. Conclusion

This brief review summarises a number of the key themes to emerge from the nonprofit literature in the past thirty years. Whilst interest in the topic is growing, as evidenced by the emergence of a range of specialist journals, the quality of research is variable and the volume low when compared with that grounded in other sectors of the marketing discipline. There remain few dedicated nonprofit faculty appointments and little course provision, even in the form of specialist options, for those who might wish to learn more about the topic. This is true even in the United States, where the size and social significance of the sector might suggest it would be otherwise. Notwithstanding these problems, however, it is indubitably the case that nonprofit research is increasingly recognised as a distinct and important field of study in its own right. Moreover, its influence is sure to expand as governments throughout the world con-

tinue to retreat from the provision of social and healthcare services and, hence, to rely more and more heavily on charitable organisations to bridge the welfare gap. “Big issue” research is needed in the subject aimed at advancing its basic theoretical and empirical foundations and generating results that are widely generalisable (beyond as well as within the nonprofit domain). Research on individual topics must properly and comprehensively reference and build upon prior relevant studies in mainstream academic marketing, and should eschew the (understandable) temptation to concentrate on second-order issues and/or single case studies that have little potential for developing genuinely fresh knowledge in the field. Conceptual and quantitative analyses in the nonprofit marketing area must be set up in ways that connect to critical concepts and theories in the marketing discipline, as a whole, implying perhaps that the language and frameworks used by nonprofit academics may need to be reconfigured to facilitate easy interactions with mainstream marketing research.

The papers appearing in this part, a special section, have been chosen with these considerations in mind. Each of the contributions will, in its own way, serve to stimulate interest in the topic it addresses and help draw attention to those areas that are as yet underdeveloped and where further research would genuinely serve to improve the quality of nonprofit management and leadership.

In the first paper, after this introduction, MacMillan et al. extend the Morgan and Hunt commitment–trust model to the voluntary sector. Exploring the relationship between 41 not-for-profit organisations and their funders, the authors offer a number of distinct contributions to our thinking with respect to the role and nature of relationship marketing in this context. Notable here is the authors’ identification of the lack of significance of material benefits (accruing from the relationship) and termination costs as drivers of commitment.

In the next paper, Hibbert et al. examine one of the most underresearched, yet significant, aspects of nonprofit income generation, namely, charity retailing. Their contribution offers considerable insight into how consumers dispose of unwanted goods and, in particular, those that could potentially be donated for resale by a charity. The authors conclude that the current collection techniques employed by nonprofits are haphazard, and that a significant opportunity to raise funds is being squandered. They propose a new typology of households that may be employed by charity retailers to improve the quality of targeting and, hence, collection activities.

Mottner and Ford supply the second paper in the domain of retailing. This article examines the link between strategy and performance in the case of museum stores. It notes a move away from a purely fundraising emphasis in such outlets to one that, in addition, provides an educational or mission-related opportunity. The paper explores the connection between chosen retail strategy and both financial and nonfinancial performance (education) measures. Key relationships between these constructs are explored, leading to

the conclusion that educational performance has a significant negative effect on financial performance. This suggests that some degree of trade-off may now be necessary in both setting and delivering specific categories of retail objectives.

The paper by Ewing and Napoli describes the recent development of managerial practice in the field of nonprofit branding and provides a valuable summary of the academic literature pertaining to this topic. Their empirical work, conducted in Australia, sought to develop and validate a multidimensional scale of nonprofit brand orientation. The underlying dimensions of this construct were found to be interaction, orchestration, and affect. These outcomes have a number of implications for professional practice that are explored in the text.

In the final paper, Gainer and Padanyi examine the relationship between market-oriented activities and market-oriented culture. In a study of over 1800 Canadian nonprofits, the authors conclude that the existence of both a client-oriented culture and client-oriented behaviour is important in driving organisational performance. Indeed, a causal relationship between these constructs is identified. The results of the study may therefore be employed by nonprofit managers seeking to enhance performance through the development of a market-oriented culture. The specific dimensions of the latter, which have a quantifiable impact on performance, are highlighted.

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